



Perceived Vice and Unengaging Edification

Game Analyses of Two Christian Digital Games.

Domenico Agius

Supervised by Prof. Stefano Gualeni

Institute of Digital Games
University of Malta

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ta' Malta**

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To John Doe

Some more descriptive text.

Acknowledgements

These are the acknowledgements. Hello, here is some text without a meaning. This text should show what a printed text will look like at this place. If you read this text, you will get no information. Really? Is there no information? Is there a difference between this text and some nonsense like “Huardest gefburn”? Kjift – not at all! A blind text like this gives you information about the selected font, how the letters are written and an impression of the look. This text should contain all letters of the alphabet and it should be written in of the original language. There is no need for special content, but the length of words should match the language.

Abstract

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Introduction

1.1 | Motivation

1.2 | Aims and Objectives

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1.3 | Our Approach

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Background & Literature Overview

2.1 | What Are Christian Digital Games?

What makes something, or even someone, “Christian”? Regardless of the subject of discussion, this question is always likely to spark conflicting views. For instance, Schultze and Woods (2008) noted that fans of U2’s Bono have questioned his Christian status after he swore during an award show. The authors further observed that Christian groups also disagree on what it means for a cultural artefact to be Christian. For example, they mention that many Evangelicals consider media as Christian only if it is made by and for Evangelicals. Others, such as Lawton (2021), MacInnis (2025), or Unthank (2023), may prefer to consider content, authorial intent, or media impact when determining whether literature, music, or film is Christian.

Similarly, games scholar Kevin Schut states that currently there is no consensus on what defines a Christian game (Faith Forms, 2024, 8:38). This becomes apparent when one examines online discussion around the topic. For example, one of the factors that Moon Channel (2023) considers when determining if a digital game is Christian is that it must promote Christian morals. Meanwhile, Hartgrove (2022) considers *Hypnospace Outlaw* (Tholen, 2019) a Christian game primarily because its creator, Jay Tholen, identifies as a Christian¹.

From the examples mentioned so far, it becomes evident that the question of what constitutes something as Christian is a highly contentious and subjective matter. Therefore, before analysing the opinions surrounding them, I needed to establish an operational definition of “Christian digital games”.

¹Although Hartgrove does discuss the game’s content somewhat, he does not deem explicit ideological content as necessary for a digital game to be Christian.

2.1.1 | Existing Definitions

Earlier work by Schut (2013) gives us a good starting point for such a definition. Based on a series of interviews with 17 Christians working in the game industry, he outlined four definitions of “Christian Games”. Explicitly Christian Games “feature Bible stories or passages, very clear presentation of the gospel message, and stories that very openly have a Christian worldview”. As an example, Schut raises *Big Bible Town* (Third Day Games, 2010), a digital game which aims to teach children about Bible stories. Meanwhile, Allegorical Christian Games “have stories that are not necessarily openly Christian but have Christian themes or messages underneath them” (p. 137). Interviewees mentioned no instances of such games, but they cited the *Narnia* series (Lewis, 1950–1956/2000) an example of this style.

Interviewees also raised what Schut terms as Evangelical Christian digital games, which “focus on sharing the gospel with people who aren’t Christians”. (pp. 137–138). However, this is only a hypothetical definition since neither Schut nor his interviewees could cite any examples. Lastly, Christian-friendly games, such as *Bejeweled Deluxe* (Karpalka, 2001/2006) (Newtoy, 2009) and *Words With Friends*, are “clean and safe, without significant violence, adult sexuality, swearing, anti-Christian worldviews, and other things that Christians might find offensive or disturbing” (p. 137).

Schut’s work also gives valuable insight into how the term “Christian Games” is used. For example, he notes that most of the interviewees commonly defined “Christian Games” as either Explicitly Christian Games or Allegorically Christian games. However, only few of them considered Christian-friendly games part of the genre. Although this information proved useful for my study, I was hesitant to reuse these definitions due to Schut’s ambiguous use of the term “Christian”; as I have already mentioned in the beginning of this section (see Section 2.1), individuals may not necessarily agree on what determines something as Christian.

Subsequent work by Schut (2026) acknowledges the subjective application of this term (p. 310), and clarifies his use of the term “Christian”. While there are various groups which could be described as Christian, Schut observes that the Christian media industry in North America is influenced primarily by Evangelicals. He attributes their dominance to their collective focus on proselytism and their eagerness to adopt new media technologies as a means to that end. However, he also remarks that Evangelicals have not always counted for the majority of North American Christians, and that they are still garnering a presence in most other countries. Furthermore, he also

notes that other groups, such as Roman Catholics, have also produced Christian games. Consequently, he specifies that, within the context of Christian digital games, the term “Christian” is often synonymous with “Evangelical”, though this is not always the case.

Within the same study, Schut continued to investigate the ways in which Christians have employed the term “Christian” to describe digital games. He found that, occasionally, Christians have argued that digital games with Christian authorship are Christian games. However, after a brief survey of the types of digital games which Christians have described as Christian, Schut concluded that they typically use the term to disclose the presence of Christian ideology within a digital game. However, Schut does not provide a more detailed, formal definition which I could use for my research.

Around 12 years earlier, Gonzalez (2014) had already shown that the overwhelming majority of Christian digital games had Evangelical associations by compiling a comprehensive list of religious digital games. However, unlike Schut, Gonzales does not opt to define Christian games for her research. Instead, she defines “religious games” to study Evangelical digital games within the broader picture of playful religious software. Using “agential realism” as her ontological frame, Gonzales describes something as “religious” if it stages interactions between human and non-human beings (p. 24), such as angels and demons.

Based on this definition, she excludes games like *Castlevania* (Akamatsu, 1986) from her study, which include typically religious materials to embellish their fictional world. She does this because these games do not depict the non-human others as agents with which borders must be negotiated, but as imaginary entities. Similarly, she disregards games such as *Run, Jesus Run!* (Pederchini, 2010) or *Crucify-me! Jesus* (Chapman, 2000), which utilize religious material derisively, since these negotiate boundaries between human groups. Furthermore, Gonzales limits her study to religious organizations, which she defines as a long-lived alliance of human and non-human entities which jointly determine the borders of humanity.

While this definition is more rigorous than either of Schut’s definitions, my original research question does not concern games associated with religions unrelated to Christianity. Therefore, I could not use it for my research. Nevertheless, her definition of religious organisations proved useful as a source of inspiration for my own definition, which I describe in the following section.

2.1.2 | My Definition

Each of the definitions mentioned in the previous section presents valid ideas about what can qualify a game as “Christian” or “religious”. However, given that the definitions are either incomplete or cover games outside my field of study, I could not reuse them for my research. Therefore, using these existing definitions as a point of departure, I created my own definition of “Christian digital games” (or “Christian games” for short).

Due to the vague nature of the “Christian” label, which I have already discussed in the start of this section (see Section 2.1), a complete definition of Christian games also needs to elucidate its use of the term. During my research, I could not find much insight into how players or developers use the term in the context of Christian games. While I have found blogs by Oliver (2014, 2016) which mention Evangelicals when discussing Christian games, there are also other individuals which do not specify any particular denomination (Hartgrove, 2022; Monkastery, 2018; Moon Channel, 2023)². Meanwhile, related studies either fail to elaborate on their usage (Schut, 2013) or employ it as a catch-all term for various religious groups (Bernauer, 2012; Schut, 2026). Furthermore, within her list of religious games, Gonzalez (2014) seems to use “Christian” as an overarching category for games associated with Christianity.

Therefore, to facilitate discussion of existing research, I defined “Christianity” as a blanket term encompassing a constellation of long-lived groups or institutions that promote their interpretations of Christ’s teachings, such as Evangelicals, Presbyterians, Anglicans, Roman Catholics, Greek Orthodox, and Mormons. Similarly, something (e.g. an ideology or belief) or someone is “Christian” when it is primarily based on, or actively aims to observe the teachings of Jesus Christ as understood by one or more of these communities. Of course, these definitions are by no means authoritative; they only serve to establish a common understanding for discussion.

After establishing a working definition of “Christian”, I proceeded by defining Christian games as a genre. I considered defining Christian games as digital games with Christian authorship as suggested by Hartgrove (2022). However, doing so would also include several games which have no significantly religious content. Take Hartgrove’s example for instance. He argues that through its aesthetically pleasing qualities, artistic excellence, and believable characters, *Hypnospace Outlaw* (Tholen, 2019) reveals Tholen’s

²Nevertheless, it is worth noting that the examples cited within these discussions are Evangelical games.

love for beauty originating from his Christian beliefs. While this philosophy can be connected to Christianity, it is hardly exclusive to it. Therefore, based on its content, players may just as easily consider the game as secular.

Based on the remarks by Unthank (2023) on Christian films, I could have chosen to define Christian games based on authorial intent. After all, many Christian games are created with the intent to educate their players about Christianity (Gonzalez, 2014, p. 60; Schut, 2026, pp. 303, 306), so it would have been simple to define Christian games as digital games created with such a purpose. Nevertheless, players have widely acclaimed games outside this category and rarely label them as preachy, in spite of their Christian content³. Therefore, by doing so I would have excluded games of interest to this study.

Furthermore, I explored the possibility of defining Christian games based on the impact a game has on its developers and players, but this was difficult to measure for any given game. Hence, though MacInnis (2025) describes Christian music as music which makes its performers and listeners more willing to love their God and neighbour, I shall not be imitating such efforts for digital games.

Given that I was investigating players' perceptions of Christian digital games, I based my definition on the most common uses of the term, which relate to Christian ideology (Schut, 2026). Other elements, such as biblical stories, Bible quotes, Christian themes and messages, which Schut (2013) outlines in his definitions of Explicitly Christian games and Allegorical Christian games, could be said to be manifestations of such a worldview. Additionally, Gonzalez (2014) remarks that many Evangelical games betray a theology of spiritual warfare prevalent among Evangelicals in the 1980s and 90s, even if ideology is not a prerequisite in her definition of religious games.

Therefore, for this study, “Christian games” are digital games with an underlying Christian worldview that presents itself through legible signifiers. That is, the game contains elements which players can trace to Christian ideology with relative ease.

Obvious examples of such signifiers include adaptations of Bible stories and the

³Throughout my research I found four such games: *That Dragon, Cancer* (Numinous Games, 2016a), *In His Time* (yona, 2023), *and Roger* (yona, 2025), and *Dropsy* (Tholen, 2015). At the time of writing, all four have Steam pages with a rating of over 80% (Numinous Games, 2016b; TearyHand Studio, 2023, 2025; Tendershoot, 2015).

inclusion of Bible quotes, such as in *Super 3-D Noah's Ark* (Wisdom Tree, 1994/2014). Other Christian games indicate their Christian status through their treatment of their scripted narrative's⁴ themes. Consider *That Dragon, Cancer* (Numinous Games, 2016a) themes for example. Its scripted narrative tackles the loss of the developers' son through the lens of their Christian faith, making their spirituality explicit in the process.

Alternatively, scripted narratives in Christian games can feature thinly veiled Christian allegories. The developers of *Alum* (Orsie, 2015), describe it as “a sort of Christian Allegory along the lines of Pilgrims [sic] Progress or The Lion, the Witch, and the Wardrobe” (Crashable Studios, 2015). Some players recognised this, calling *Alum* a Christian game, often citing, or implying, its narrative as their primary reason⁵. One player specifies that they classify it as a Christian game because the game's scripted narrative develops a loving relationship between the eponymous player character, “Alum”, and a deity called the “Unfeigned Altruist”, while also pitting Alum in a fight against dark forces⁶ (thomascanarias, 2016). Even if players do not notice the parallels to Christianity while playing, the game's ending makes one parallel explicit when it calls Jesus Christ “the true and living Unfeigned Altruist”.

For the most part, *Alum* attempts to be more covert than *Super 3-D Noah's Ark* (Wisdom Tree, 1994/2014) or *That Dragon, Cancer* (Numinous Games, 2016a) about its ties to Christianity. Nevertheless, all three narrow the range of possible associations such that even players with a cursory knowledge of Christianity can make the connection. The same cannot be said about the example raised by Hartgrove (2022); players may just as easily relate the appreciation towards beauty evident within *Hypnospace Outlaw* (Tholen, 2019) to a non-religious worldview.

Since my definition requires the digital game in question to be aligned with Christian ideology, I did not consider games which draw on Christianity for inspiration. So, despite requiring players to journey through hell and slaughter demon hordes, *Doom* (id Software, 1993) falls outside of the field being studied. The same cannot be said for games which reference Christianity to mock it or its followers. As an example, Gonzalez (2014, p. 120) mentions BoMToons, a Mormon game developer which created multiple digital games poking fun at Mormon scripture and culture. However, the examples brought up by players when criticising Christian games, such as *Left Behind: Eternal*

⁴I use the term “scripted narrative” in the way defined by Calleja (2011). I discuss his Player Involvement Model, along with the definition of this term, in Section 2.3.3.

⁵For examples, see Arkane (2015), hamja (2015) and virotti (2017).

⁶See Chapter 4 for a more detailed analysis of *Alum's* narrative.

Forces (Inspired Media Entertainment, 2006) and *Captain Bible in Dome of Darkness* (Engelbrite, 1994)⁷, tend to be more earnest about their subject matter. Hence, I limited my study to digital games which approach Christianity in a more solemn manner.

2.2 | Related Work

With my area of study established, I am now in a position to discuss related research examining mainstream reception of Christian games. As I will demonstrate shortly, this study aims to address an existing research gap by examining the content of Christian games as a potential cause of players' critiques.

Apart from providing four distinct definitions for Christian games (see Section 2.1.1), Schut (2013) also relays the opinions of the interviewees regarding this genre. Some of the developers interviewed did mention that they consider Christian games as preachy (pp. 136, 139), but Schut does not attempt to learn if there are any reasons behind this verdict.

Throughout my research, I was unable to find another study analysing the opinions surrounding Christian games. Gonzalez (2014) briefly mentions bloggers of unnoticed games mocking Christian games (p. 8), and claims of unoriginality (pp. 143–144), an issue closely related to the one under examination. However, her dissertation mostly avoids discussing the enjoyment derived from Christian games. When reflecting on her own experiences playing Evangelical games, she recalls occasions of bewilderment only to dismiss them. Instead, she asserts that she found Evangelical games to be “wonderful, unforgettably good games” (p. 266). Nevertheless, these moments of discomfort may merit further attention; understanding their cause might help clarify the reasons behind certain player’s dismay, and help future developers to avoid these pitfalls. While it may be tempting to dismiss all criticism as snide remarks, it is beneficial to give an honest consideration to negative feedback. This is doubly true when that feedback comes from one’s intended target audience.

Although neither Bernauer (2012) nor Schut (2026) mention the negative opinions surrounding Christian games, both propose reasons for their lack of success. For one, Bernauer maintains that the lack of mainstream interest in Christian games is, in part, due to the explicit Christian convictions presented within these games. Furthermore, she also blames Christian games' (mostly) young target audience, noting that studies

⁷These examples were mentioned by Hartgrove (2022) and Moon Channel (2023) respectively.

found the average gamer to be around thirty-five years old. Lastly, she presents several issues stemming from a lack of finances when comparing Christian game companies to other studios. These include their inability to publish their games on consoles, the lack of both local and online multiplayer in most of their titles, and the short lifespan of these firms.

Meanwhile, Schut attributes three reasons for the lack of commercial success of Christian games within Evangelical circles. Primarily, he ascribes this predicament to the lack of blockbusters within the Christian games industry; unlike Christian television, for instance, Christian games do not have their own *VeggieTales* (Vischer, 1993–2015) to drive sales. He also notes that “the legacy of moral panics over *Dungeons and Dragons* in the 1980s predisposed many Evangelicals to be skeptical of video games” (p. 302). Additionally, he cites an argument by Moon Channel (2023) regarding the Protestant work ethic within America, which conflicts with thriftless, unproductive play. However, Schut admits that Evangelical’s receptiveness towards consumerism discredits this explanation somewhat.

Although all of these reasons may indeed contribute to the unpopularity of Christian games, most of them are factors external to the games’ development process. Bernauer offers actionable suggestions for some of the issues raised, such as targeting older age demographics and making Christian content more implicit. However, most of the reasons given by both researchers are difficult or even impossible for Christian game developers to control. Furthermore, both of them also fail to acknowledge the main reason why many players have decried Christian games in the first place — the games’ content.

Hence, in Chapter 4 I examine two Christian games in the hopes of better understanding what causes certain players to view Christian games as preachy. In the following section, I shall now look at some existing theories which could help explain didacticism in Christian games.

2.3 | Applicable Theories

2.3.1 | Warrant Reduction Assumption

In his article, Repp (2012) describes what he calls the “warrant reduction assumption”. He offers this as an explanation of why literary works, primarily those outside academic contexts, may be considered didactic. In his explanation, he makes two assumptions clear. Firstly, he presupposes that authors can convey their accounts to readers without

necessarily inserting themselves as narrators or characters within the text. Secondly, he presumes that one's writing may convey aspects of their intellectual character. Inspired, by Aristotle's model of moral nature, he proposes that noetic vice can be thought of as gradually ingrained dispositions, which hinder one's enlightenment.

Repp proposes two definitions to explain his theory. "Testimonial beliefs" describe the convictions formed from someone else's accounts, whereas the "warrant" describes the premise on which one believes a source to be trustworthy. He argues that, when authors are overly overt, readers may be given reason to believe that the author might possess some intellectual vice such as zealotry, prejudice, or arrogance. As a result, their warrant for the writer's testimonial beliefs are reduced, since they believe that information being presented is compromised. He likens this phenomenon to when someone is said to "protest too much". In other words, when they argue a point so frequently or emphatically that they raise one's suspicion on the truth of their statements.

Though Repp suggests this theory primarily in relation to literary works, one can see through examples that it also can also apply for Christian games. Take the review by Arkane (2015) for *Alum* (Orsie, 2015), a Christian game which I will be analysing in more detail in Chapter 4. He pans the game for its heavy-handedness, which he blames on the dogmatism of the game's developers. Though he does not call the game "didactic", he still expresses a reasoning very similar to that given by Repp:

I hope the team that worked on this will expand a little bit, bring in some people with different perspectives. Maybe have someone there whose only job is to say, "Hey, that story element you just wrote? Maybe we should find a more subtle approach to implementing it." I'm not saying, "Don't make a religious game." I'm saying don't get caught in an echo chamber of religious ideas and lose sight of the 'game' aspects of it. (para. 5)

The review stands as the most highly rated on the game's Steam page, with 189 users having marked it is helpful as of the time of writing. Though not all of them might share the exact same opinion of Arkane, it is reasonable to assume that his points resonated with some of them. Meanwhile Hartgrove (2022) calls *Left Behind: Eternal Forces* (Inspired Media Entertainment, 2006) "propaganda" (para. 13) due to its promotion of views associated with conservative American Christians and creationists. Censorious Idler (2018) produces very similar critiques about fundamentalism in *Captain Bible in Dome of Darkness*, the other game under analysis in Chapter 4, deeming it "unabashedly

preachy” (A Third Way section, para. 8). Repp considers the terms “propagandistic” and “preachy” to be closely related to “didactic”, when it is used in its negative sense.

Perhaps this theory may help explain some of the negative opinions mentioned in the introduction (see Chapter 1), yet it still leaves others unanswered. For instance, it still does not explain why heavy-handed edification might be considered to be a hindrance to engagement during play (Monkastery, 2018; Moon Channel, 2023). We can see this point being also expressed within Arkane’s review, when he notes that the game’s forceful mode of instruction “consumed the mechanics” (para. 4) as the scripted narrative progressed. The warrant reduction assumption also fails to address why players like Adam complain that scripted narratives in Christian games present ideas to players outright (Games and Groceries Podcast, 2020).

While defending his theory against alternate views, he dismisses the idea that didacticism could be viewed negatively because, by pushing a particular reading, it ruins the pleasure of noting how many alternate interpretations one can derive from a work. He rejects this view on the grounds that critics often debate on the intended reading often advancing their own, singular, interpretation. He also contends that didacticism does not necessarily limit readers to a single interpretation, since he believes the issue stems from *how* the message is conveyed, rather than *how many*.

I do concede to Repp’s reasons for rejecting this argument. Nonetheless, as I demonstrate later in Section 2.3.4, he does not completely dismiss the role of interpretation in cases where audiences decry instruction. The next section explores this further through a separate investigation.

2.3.2 | Aesthetic Agency

Instead of investigating “didacticism” and its negative repercussions on intellectual value, King (2017) examines the aesthetic value of subtlety in art and beyond. Specifically, he examines why subtlety is desirable in cases where it is. He does not propose that subtlety is *always* valuable; in some contexts, such as children’s books or dance music, he notes that straightforwardness might be preferred to subtlety. Conversely, what might be considered heavy-handed in one context, might be regarded as bold or direct in other cases.

To understand what makes subtlety valuable in certain occasions, he begins by examining what makes heavy-handedness undesirable in others. Though heavy-handed

art might offend its audience, King does not consider this as a reasonable attribution for the source of its unpleasantness. Similarly, he discredits intentionality as an explanation, since audiences might feel insulted even if the artist did not mean to offend. This statement makes more sense in context, since he brings it into consideration to disregard the notion that subtlety is good because it demonstrates intentionality, and thus the artist's skill.

In contrast to account rejected by Repp (2012), King does not propose that the problem with heavy-handedness might be that it restrict us to a single interpretation *per se*. Rather, he introduces the "show-don't-tell" convention to demonstrate that art is considered heavy-handed when it limits one's freedom to interpret a work (i.e., their aesthetic agency). As King puts it, "[heavy-handedness] clearly manipulates its audience and in doing so, forces them into a passive role" (p. 126). Conversely, subtlety is valuable in cases where it promotes active engagement.

King affirms that audiences can actively engagement with art even when the works in question are not typically considered as interactive. After all, aesthetic appreciation of art may still require one to focus their attention towards it, attempt to become more receptive to its contents, and form their own reading. That being said, active engagement does not necessarily entail conscious or deliberate engagement. He recognises, for example, that engaging with a reference to *Middlemarch* (Eliot, 1871–1872/2008) in the song *How Soon is Now?* (The Smiths, 1985), and understanding how it applies to the song's themes requires mindful reflection. However, readers of *Pride and Prejudice* (Austen, 1813/2002) might respond to Elizabeth Bennet's sudden attraction to Mr. Darcy by recognising it as being financially-driven, even if they do not realise what drove them to that conclusion in the first place.

King extends his account beyond the visual arts, literature, and music, stating that his explanation can also apply to digital games, food, architecture, and even natural beauty. In particular, he notes the following for digital games:

In fact, as an interactive medium, video games emphasize the difference that subtlety can make to the degree of one's engagement. Subtlety makes a video game more realistic and immersive, and encourages players to explore different paths, strategies, and so on. (p. 135)

Indeed, his account does help explain some instances where players complain that

a digital game offers excessive assistance. Take the complaints surrounding the use of yellow paint in triple-A titles. Though such markers might aid more unskilled players in navigating unfamiliar terrain, they may also discourage attentiveness. Therefore, players who might enjoy exploration, may feel disappointment when the game does not allow them to exert their agency in this way. They could even feel insulted that the game is doubting their navigational abilities.

That being said, it still fails to explain other cases where instruction might hinder player engagement due to the manner in which it is included in the digital game. For example, *Bible Adventures* Wisdom Tree (1991) allows players to play through several two-dimensional platforming stages as different biblical figures. Noah's stages feature stone tablets which players can collect using the in-game avatar to restore some health. Unlike more conventional health items, which do nothing else except increasing health, the stone tablets interrupt gameplay with a full-screen close up of the slab and the verse of scripture engraved upon it.

King's account gives us very little clarification on how this element could hinder engagement. One could argue that this breaks the player's involvement with more potentially absorbing parts of the game (e.g., moving, exploring the level, and collecting animals). However, none of this account fits within the explanation provided by King. This lack of insight is caused by the broad scope of his theory, which fails to account for the unique modes of engagement in digital games. In fact, Calleja (2011, Chapter 2) notes a similar difficulty when analysing theories related to immersion.

Therefore, neither of the reasons given by Repp (2012) and King will be able to explain why some players think that educative elements in Christian games can jeopardise engagement (Arkane, 2015; Monkastery, 2018; Moon Channel, 2023). In the next section, I will provide a model which could help account for the unique modes of engagement in certain game titles.

2.3.3 | Player Involvement Model

The Player Involvement Model by Calleja (2011) provides a detailed and flexible framework to understand the engaging and immersive affordances within digital games set in virtual environments (i.e., game environments).

In his model, Calleja distinguishes "micro-engagement" from "macro-engagement". The former relates to engagement experienced as the player interacts with a digital

game. Meanwhile, the latter describes engagement outside of gameplay which draws players to begin playing a digital game and return to it later. His model pinpoints different dimensions of engagement, each of which can be analysed in the macro and micro scales. Furthermore, the different dimensions can be combined, such that the players experiences each of the fused dimensions differently.

The Player Involvement Model outlines six types of engagement (i.e., involvement): kinaesthetic, spatial, shared, narrative, affective and ludic. Kinaesthetic involvement concerns the control of the avatar or game pieces. It accounts for the process which players undertake when familiarising themselves with the controls, starting from unfamiliarity and leading to mastery. Meanwhile, manipulation, exploration, and navigation of the virtual environment is covered by the spatial dimension. Shared engagement relates to the player's awareness of, and interactions with, both programmed and human agents. These interactions include collaboration, confrontation, or cohabitation.

Gordon categorises engagement with a digital game's pre-scripted story elements and narratives arising from gameplay in the narrative dimension. He terms the former pre-determined elements as "scripted narrative", and names the latter form of experiential narrative as "alterbiography". These two are not mutually exclusive since scripted narrative pertaining to the player's avatar or game pieces may become part of their alterbiography. Affective involvement describes emotional states triggered by the game, either due to the designer's intentional game design or the player's understanding of the game. Finally, players experience ludic involvement when they engage with choices and their outcomes in the pursuit of game-established goals, personal objectives, or impulsive decisions.

It is worth noting that not all dimensions may be equally relevant to all games. For instance, Gordon observes that *Pong* (Alcorn, 1972) does not give as many affordances for spatial involvement as *Half-Life 2* (Valve, 2004). Gradually, as the player familiarises themselves with a game, they will internalise the different dimensions, thus no longer requiring their conscious attention. Providing the game permits for kinaesthetic and spatial involvement through an avatar, in some cases this can lead to an intensified blend of the different dimensions which Calleja calls "incorporation". He proposes this term as a replacement for "immersion", which he argues is often used to apply to different concepts. That being said, I will not be using this proposed metaphor, since analysing engagement alone be sufficient for this investigation.

Compared to the explanation by King (2017), the Player Involvement Model pro-

vides a far more in-depth framework for reasoning about involving affordances in digital games. More pertinent to this study, it also allows us to better observe how instructive elements within a game might limit such affordances. Consider the example I brought up in Section 2.3.2 regarding *Bible Adventures* (Wisdom Tree, 1991). We can now note how the stone tablets in Noah's levels interrupt kinaesthetic and spatial involvement by temporarily obstructing the player's view of the virtual environment and halting their movement within it.

The Player Involvement Model also gives us further insight into the bright markers, such as yellow paint, used in some triple-A titles, which I have also mentioned in Section 2.3.2. Calleja (2011, pp. 75–77) remarks that navigating a virtual environment in pursuit of some goal can be made all the more engaging if the play knows that they could get lost in the process. Consequently, removing that possibility by providing players with clear markers also limits involvement in the manner just described.

Admittedly, Calleja's model does have some limitations. Even though formal game elements shape player engagement, ultimately, involvement is subject to player subjectivity. Therefore, his model can give a referential frame for understanding player experience within certain game environment. Nonetheless, it is not a silver bullet which allows one to predict how players will experience gameplay. At best, without player feedback, it can only allow us to make an educated guess.

2.3.4 | Compatibility of Individual Theories

After reviewing each of these theories by Repp (2012), King (2017) and Calleja (2011), one might wonder if they are indeed consistent with one another. Perhaps, one could even question whether my proposition which argues that instructive elements could undermine engagement and how it relates to the theories by Repp and King.

In the first respect, one of the arguments Repp employs in defence of his explanation, could seem particularly concerning. Essentially, he highlights that the reason why literature is deemed didactic cannot be related to a flawed aesthetic sensibility. Hence, it might seem that Repp is dismissing aesthetic accounts like the one by King. However, here Repp (2012) uses "aesthetic" in its more classical sense, related to immediate perception. This is most evident when he dismisses the possibility of overtness being an aesthetic feature in literature (p. 282). However, he does not exclude the possibility of an aesthetic account tied to its more modern, subjective meaning. The latter is what King seems to employ given that he considers the possibility of heavy-handedness causing

offence.

Nevertheless, one might still argue against using the two explanations simultaneously given that Repp excludes the possibility of overtness as an explanation for didacticism. Repp reasons that, if overtness, an aesthetic quality closely tied to didacticism, is the reason why critics deemed certain literature didactic, then all forms of unsubtle instruction should be criticised. As an example, he proposes *Middlemarch*, in which Eliot (1871–1872/2008), in the form of an omniscient narrator, repeatedly interjects the narrative to offer his views on the characters and their actions. Repp notes that *Middlemarch* is, without a doubt, explicitly instructive and should thus be considered didactic. Yet, James (1873/2002), in his review of the novel protests that “Fielding was didactic — the author of *Middlemarch* is really philosophic” (para. 5).

At this stage is important that we make a distinction: though both Repp and King try to examine in what way overtness can be a flaw, neither of them try to argue that it is inherently bad. In Section 2.3.2, I have already stressed King’s observation that subtlety, and overtness by consequence, are not always faults. Therefore, it makes sense to think of the two theories as complementary views on why a lack of subtlety can be problematic.

Indeed, Repp (2012) himself seem to imply that heavy-handed instruction may limit interpretative freedom. He observes that “[a]n author who tells her readers too explicitly what lessons to draw from her story, *as if the reader is too obtuse to draw the lesson for himself* [emphasis added], may also come across as intellectually arrogant or condescending” (p. 273). Granted, King (2017) claims that “it is not the audience’s intelligence that is underestimated, it is the audience’s agency” (p. 127). However, given that King himself focuses on cognitive actions as a form of active engagement, I think it is plausible that making such acts redundant could be viewed as an implication against the audience’s mental faculties.

The theory by Repp (2012) is also compatible with my view, since he admits that didacticism may detract from non-cognitive pleasures other than noting the different interpretations that a single text can bring (pp. 272, 284). Admittedly, Calleja (2011, pp. 51–53) does reject tying digital games to prescriptive assumptions of “fun” with good reason. First, this ignores the vast range of emotional states digital games can make us feel. Secondly, amusement can apply to a broad range of experiences which vary from person to person, and is thus too broad of a concept to use for analysis. Regardless, Repp’s account does not exclude that didacticism could somehow obstruct

engagement. Therefore, my framework (see Chapter 3) will examine affordances for engagement rather than delight.

Ignoring King's claim that digital games and narrative art are similar in how they facilitate involvement, his views are also congruent both with the Player Involvement Model and my explanation. King's explanation only relates to instruction when it is unsubtle, and more crucially, this explanation does not exclude a reduction in the dimensions of engagement outlined by Calleja. Consider the yellow paint example once more. If this time a developer uses bright magenta paint to guide player across a lush jungle terrain, then the player could also deem it to be garish. Therefore, in this example, the magenta paint might not only require less attention out of the player to navigate, thereby affording less spatial involvement, but it could also make the environment less desirable to inhabit for some players, reducing affective involvement.

Furthermore, both Calleja and King concede that player might not be aware of their own engagement. Indeed, Calleja's model requires the player to internalize their engagement to experience incorporation. For convenience, I will be using his terminology of "engagement" or "involvement" in the following chapters, and not "active engagement" as King does.

2.4 | Summary

Methodology

Based on the aforementioned theories by Repp (2012), King (2017), and Calleja (2011), I created my own theoretical framework which gives two compatible explanations for why players might criticise overt instruction in digital games, whether they are Christian or not:

- A **The game is overly instructive such that players suspect that the knowledge or values presented by the designer are subject to intellectual blindspots.**
- B **The game integrates informative elements in ways that hinder player engagement.**

Based on the evidence I provided in Section 2.3.1, I reasoned that the Warrant Reduction Hypothesis could also be applied to digital games, leading me to write account A. Meanwhile, account B is a combination of the observations which King and I made for digital games. In other words, heavy-handed instruction, and the ways in which digital games deliver instruction more broadly, can both restrict the engagement one can derive from a game. I analyse the latter possibility through the lens of the Player Involvement Model (see Section 2.3.3).

One important detail that I would like to mention is that the reasons listed above can contribute to a negative experience of instructional elements *simultaneously*. As I will demonstrate in Section 4.1.2, players have panned the scripted narrative in *Alum* (Orsie, 2015) not only because they suspected that Orsie might be prone to zealotry and prejudice; they also find fault the game's overtness in itself, with one player calling the scripted narrative "insultingly obvious in its Christian intent" (Speedkillsuk, 2017, para. 1).

Using the above framework, I performed a game analysis of two Christian games to understand how their formal elements contribute to player's opinions. While I could have included further examples to help substantiate my claims, I would have run the risk of having to analyse them in a very superficial manner in doing so. Therefore, to keep the analysis insightful, I opted for a smaller sample of games.

For my first case study, I chose *Alum* (Orsie, 2015), primarily due to the substantial of reviews decrying the game for the unsubtle delivery of its themes. I explore these reviews more thoroughly in Section 4.1.2, but, for reference, I have already discussed the review by Arkane (2015) in Section 2.3.1. There are also further examples such as the reviews by adam1224 (2017), baxted (2015), stranger1982 (2015), and virotti (2017). Furthermore, I have already shown in Section 2.1.2 that the game complies with my own definition of Christian games.

I chose *Captain Bible in Dome of Darkness* (Engelbrite, 1994), or *Captain Bible*, as I will refer to it from now on, as my second case study. Like *Alum*, it also fits my working definition of Christian games, given its clear Biblical theming and Christian moral lessons, which it delivers through interactive theological arguments against robotic enemies and deceived citizen Non-Playable Characters (NPCs). Furthermore, *Captain Bible* is one of the few Christian games I am aware of which integrates moral instruction with game-play in a comprehensive manner.

To my knowledge, many Christian edutainment games are either “digitised Sunday School exercises” (Gonzalez, 2014, p. 60) such as virtual quizzes, crossword puzzles, jigsaw puzzles, word jumbles, colouring books and hangman (p. 119) or rehash existing genre conventions with the addition of Christian theming or, in the case of *The Bible Game*, multiple-choice questions relating to Christianity (Bogost, 2007, pp. 288–289). Other games may also include Bible quotes (e.g., *Bible Adventures* (Wisdom Tree, 1991), *Catechumen* (Bagley, 2000), *Left Behind: Eternal Forces* (Inspired Media Entertainment, 2006)).

Players of *Captain Bible* also seem to view the game as unique in this way. While discussing the game, annk526 (2024, Shucks, Why Do You Want Me To Play This? section, para. 5) observes that “there are not a lot of Christian Video Games [sic], and most of the ones people know are reskins or rehashes of other ideas with a ‘choose the right answer’ style multiple choice that feels tacked on”. Furthermore, Censorious Idler (2018, para. 1) praises the game as “a successful synthesis of the ludic (in Huizinga’s sense) and didactic principles necessitated by the video game form and its Evangelical heritage”, and

mentions that few other Christian games do the same (In Retrospect section). Therefore, if the educational game design in *Captain Bible* is somehow limiting player engagement, it should be rather obvious; more so than the example I gave using *Bible Adventures* in Sections 2.3.2 and 2.3.3.

As I have already noted in Section 2.3.3, player involvement is influenced not only by game design but also by player subjectivity. Therefore, to prevent my analysis from becoming too subjective, I will supplement my analysis with player reviews taken from blogs and online platforms such as Steam and YouTube. Of these reviews, I will only be considering those written or spoken in English. I do this not only because of my familiarity with the language, but also to keep my research accessible.

3.1 | Summary

Analysis & Discussion

4.1 | Alum

4.1.1 | Game Overview

Alum (Orsie, 2015) is a point-and-click adventure game heavily inspired by older titles developed by LucasArts and Sierra Entertainment. Like those games, *Alum* features a scripted narrative which players must progress by interacting with the environment. They can do so through an avatar capable of performing different actions (i.e., “verbs”) and an inventory, which they can use to store and combine items. In two occasions, the allows the player to diverge from the main sequence of scripted events. However, in both cases, doing so plays a brief narrative sequence, which leads directly to a game over screen.

4.1.2 | Key Observations

4.2 | Captain Bible in Dome of Darkness

4.2.1 | Game Overview

4.2.2 | Key Observations

4.3 | Summary

Conclusions

This section should have a summary of the whole project. The original aims and objective and whether these have been met should be discussed. It should include a section with a critique and a list of limitations of your proposed solutions. Future work should be described, and this should not be marginal or silly (e.g. add machine learning models). It is always good to end on a positive note (i.e. 'Final Remarks').

5.1 | Revisiting the Aims and Objectives

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5.2 | Critique and Limitations

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5.3 | Future Work

Hello, here is some text without a meaning. This text should show what a printed text will look like at this place. If you read this text, you will get no information. Really? Is there no information? Is there a difference between this text and some nonsense like “Huardest gefburn”? Kjift – not at all! A blind text like this gives you information about the selected font, how the letters are written and an impression of the look. This text should contain all letters of the alphabet and it should be written in of the original language. There is no need for special content, but the length of words should match the language.

5.4 | Final Remarks

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Media Content

If the dissertation has a DVD or pendrive attached to it, you will need a section which explains what is on the media (structure, files, data, etc.). This could be a table with filename and description.

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Installation Instructions

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User Manual

Hello, here is some text without a meaning. This text should show what a printed text will look like at this place. If you read this text, you will get no information. Really? Is there no information? Is there a difference between this text and some nonsense like “Huardest gefburn”? Kjift – not at all! A blind text like this gives you information about the selected font, how the letters are written and an impression of the look. This text should contain all letters of the alphabet and it should be written in of the original language. There is no need for special content, but the length of words should match the language.

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